

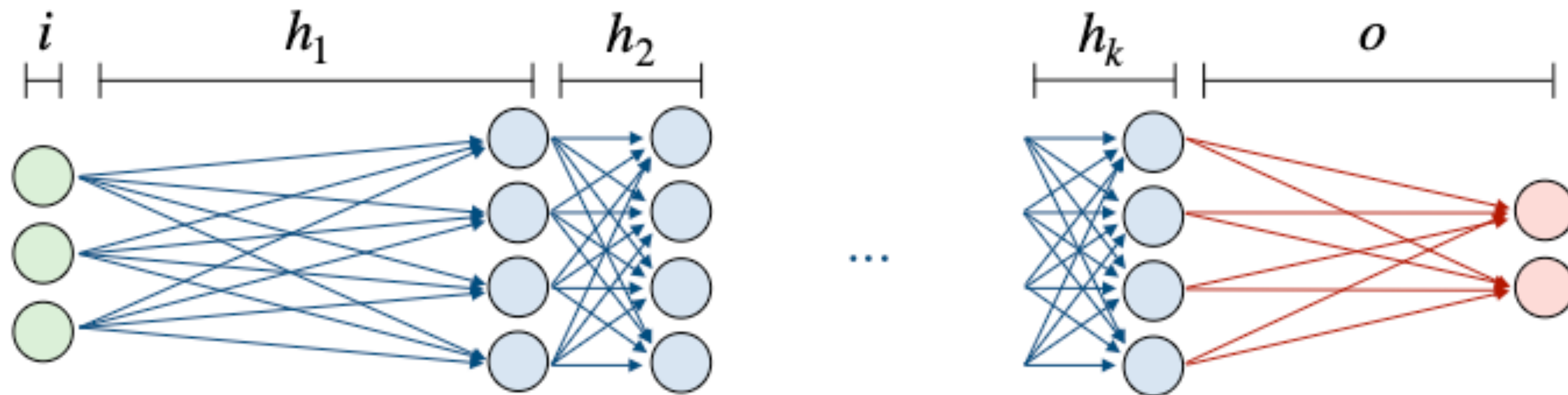
AIX

Multi-Layer Perceptron (MLP)

Mingyu Kim,
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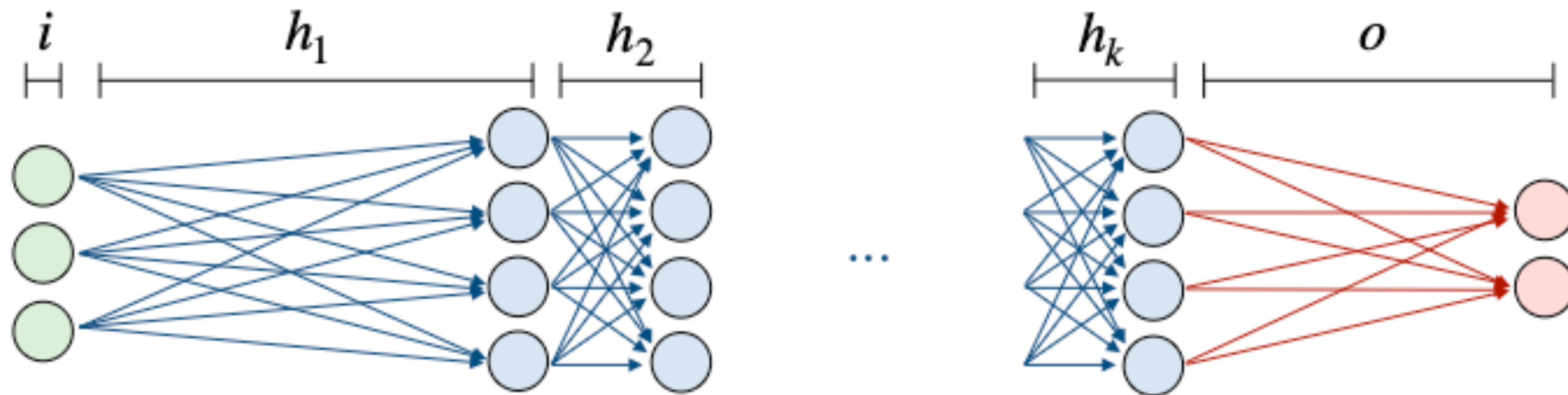
Feed-Forward Neural Network

- Network structure: input/hidden/output, activations, softmax.
- Input layer i : It receives the input as a vector of numbers.
- Hidden layers $h_1, \dots, h_k$: They transform the input using multiplications, additions and nonlinearities.
- Output layer o : It outputs a final vector that represents the model prediction.



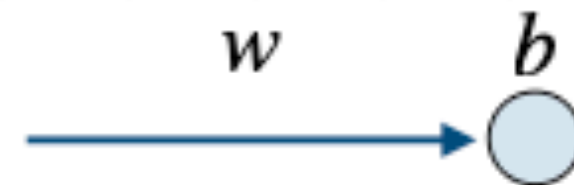
Feed-Forward Neural Network

- Neural nets learn complex patterns via connected units + nonlinearities.
- A feed-forward NN (FFNN) flows input $\rightarrow$ hidden layers $\rightarrow$ output (one direction).
- The output is a prediction vector o ; interpretation depends on the task.

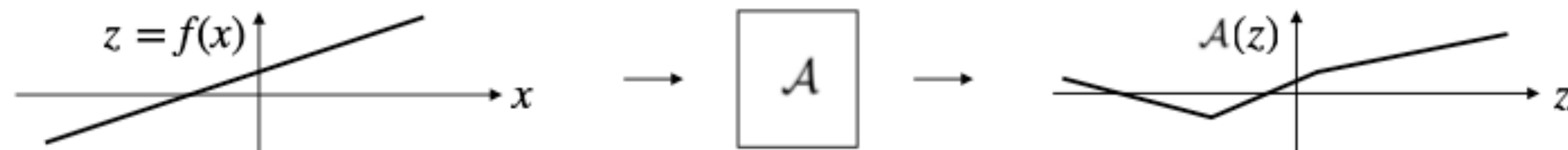


Activation and Nonlinearity

- Activations add nonlinearity so networks can model complex functions.
- Efficient form: $A(W \cdot o_{l-1} + b)$ using matrix multiplications.
- Different activations have different ranges and behaviors.

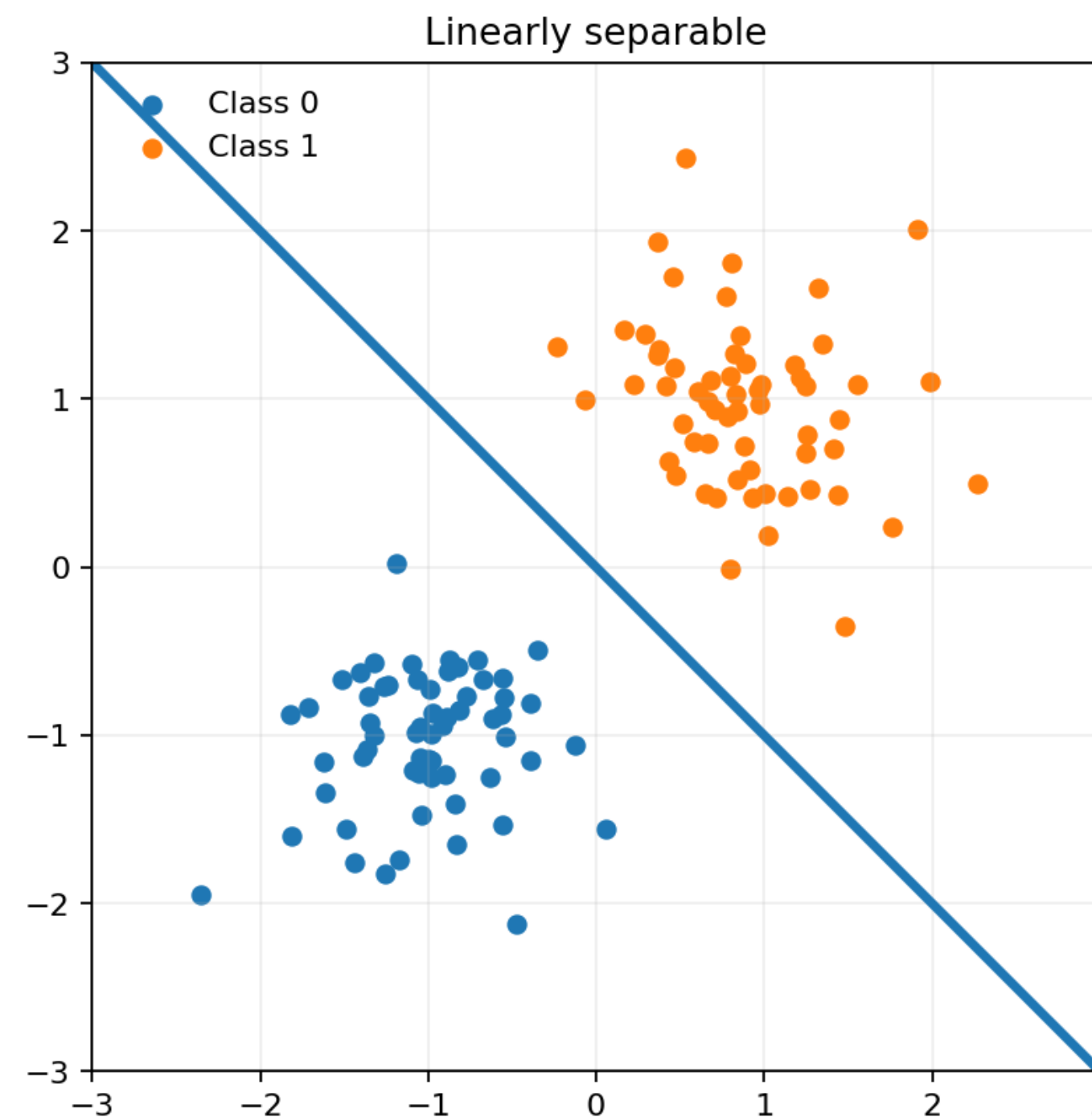


- *Activation function $\mathcal{A}$* : This is a function applied to the result of the weight multiplication and bias addition, and aims at introducing nonlinearities into the model.



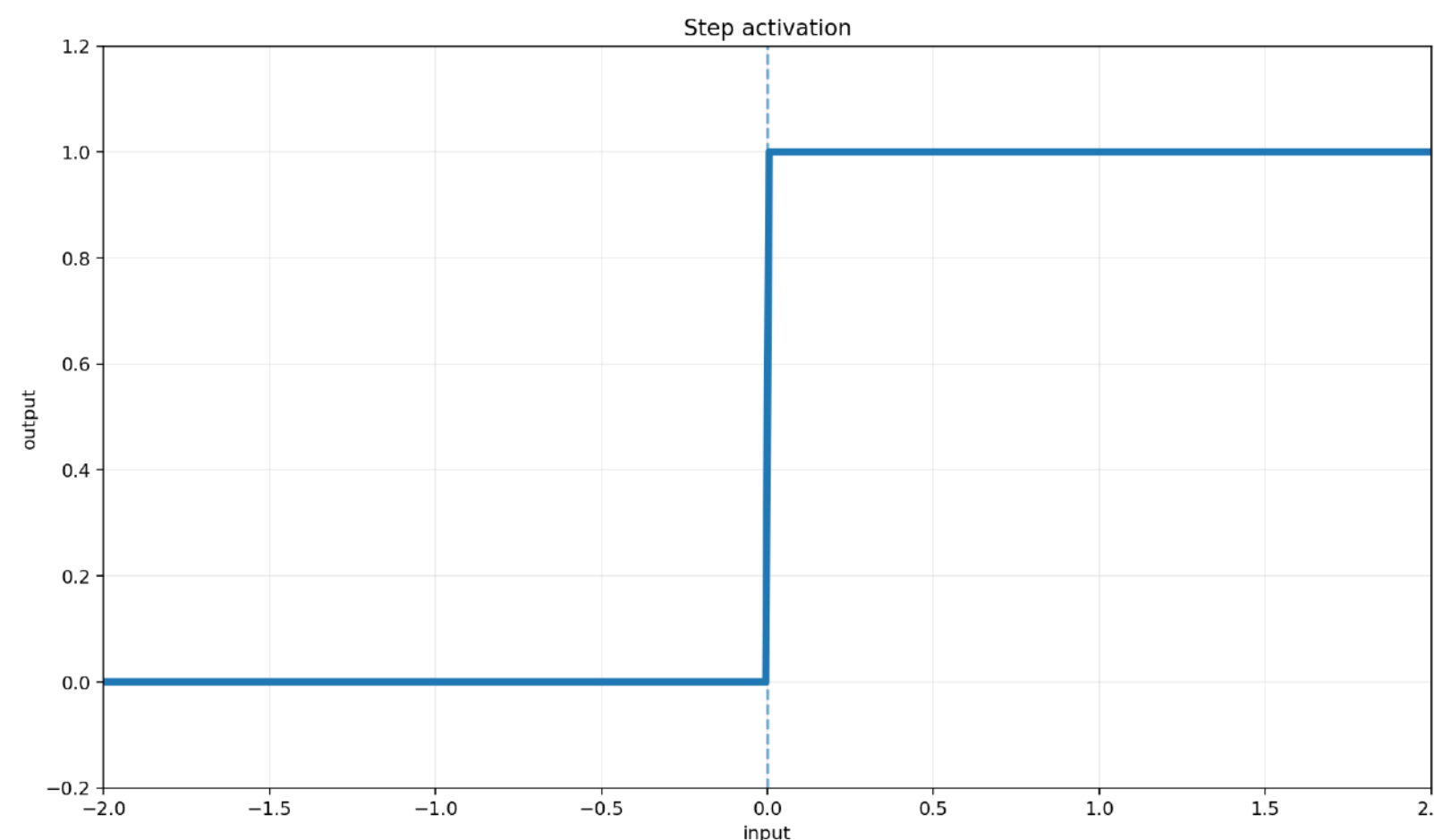
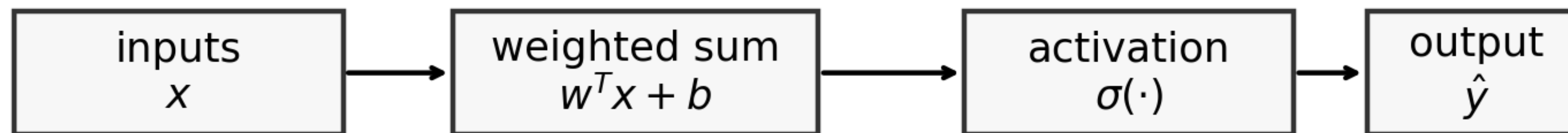
Why linear models?

- A single line can only separate “linearly separable” datasets.
- A linear model separates classes with a single line or hyperplane.
- This limitation motivates perceptrons, hidden layers, and MLPs.



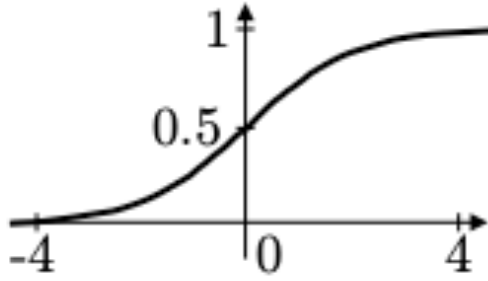
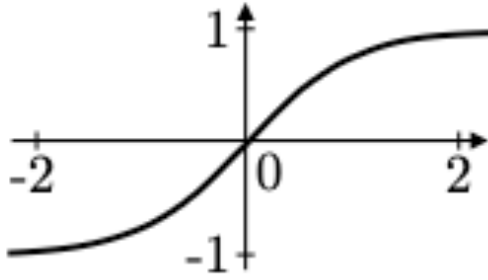
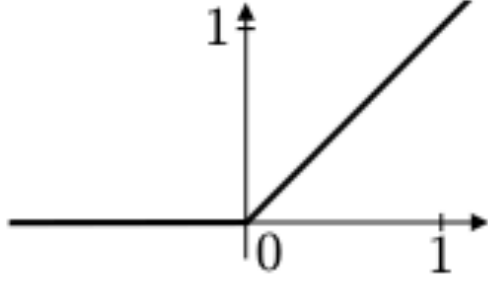
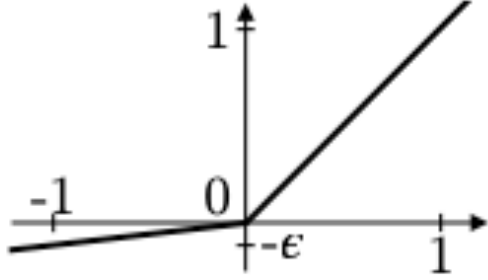
Perceptron : Component

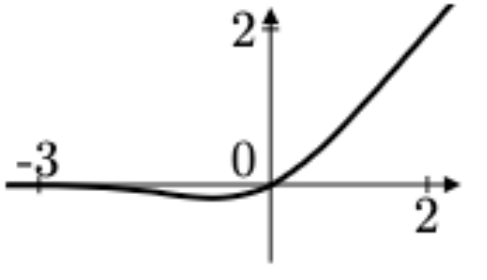
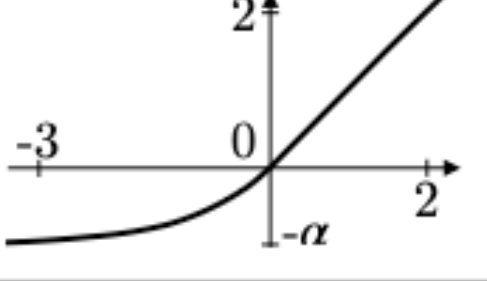
- Key Idea : A linear Score + A nonlinearity
 - The perceptron first computes a linear score $w^T x + b$.
 - An activation function converts that score into a decision.
 - This unit is the basic building block of a neural network.



Activation and Nonlinearity

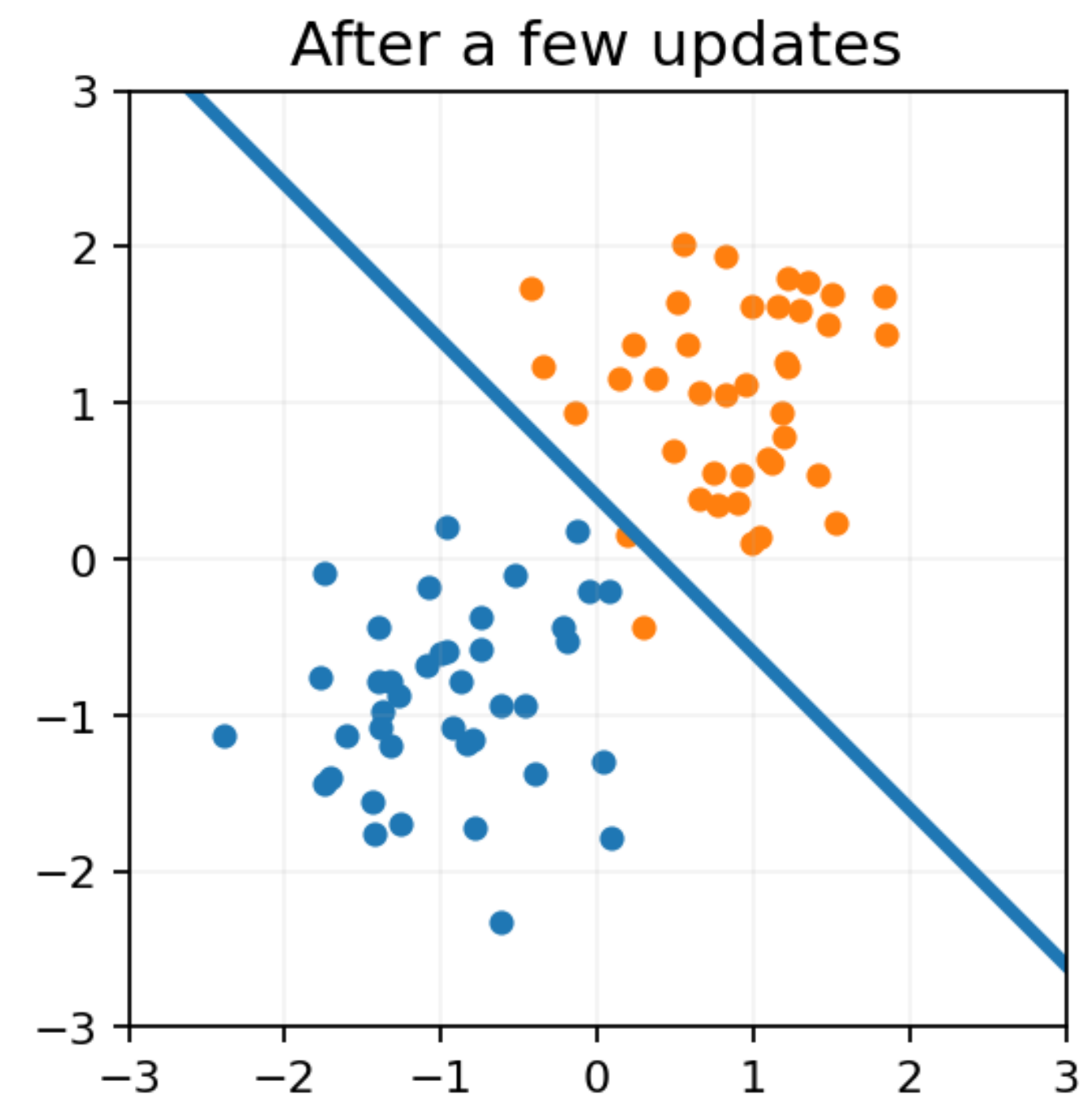
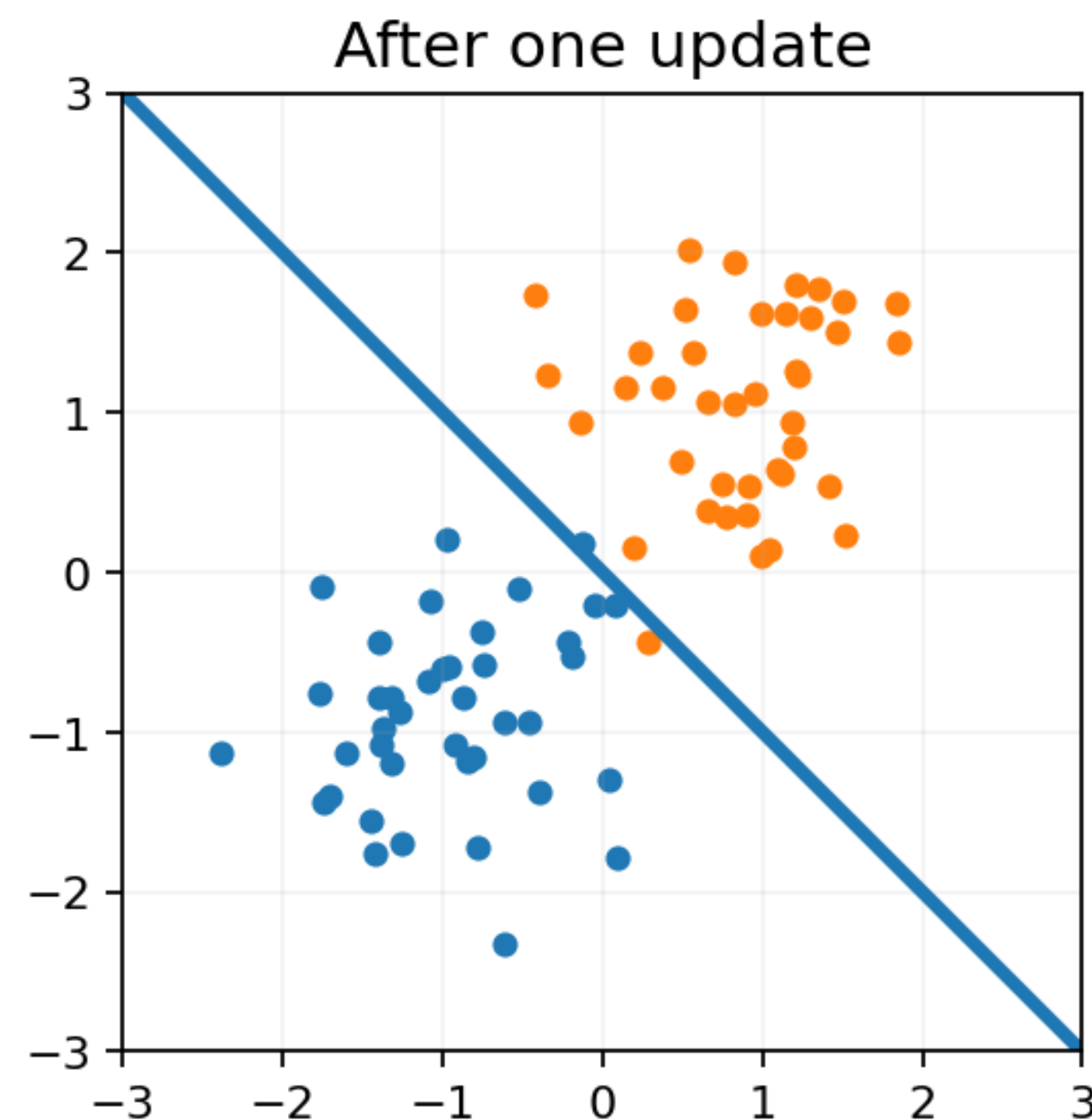
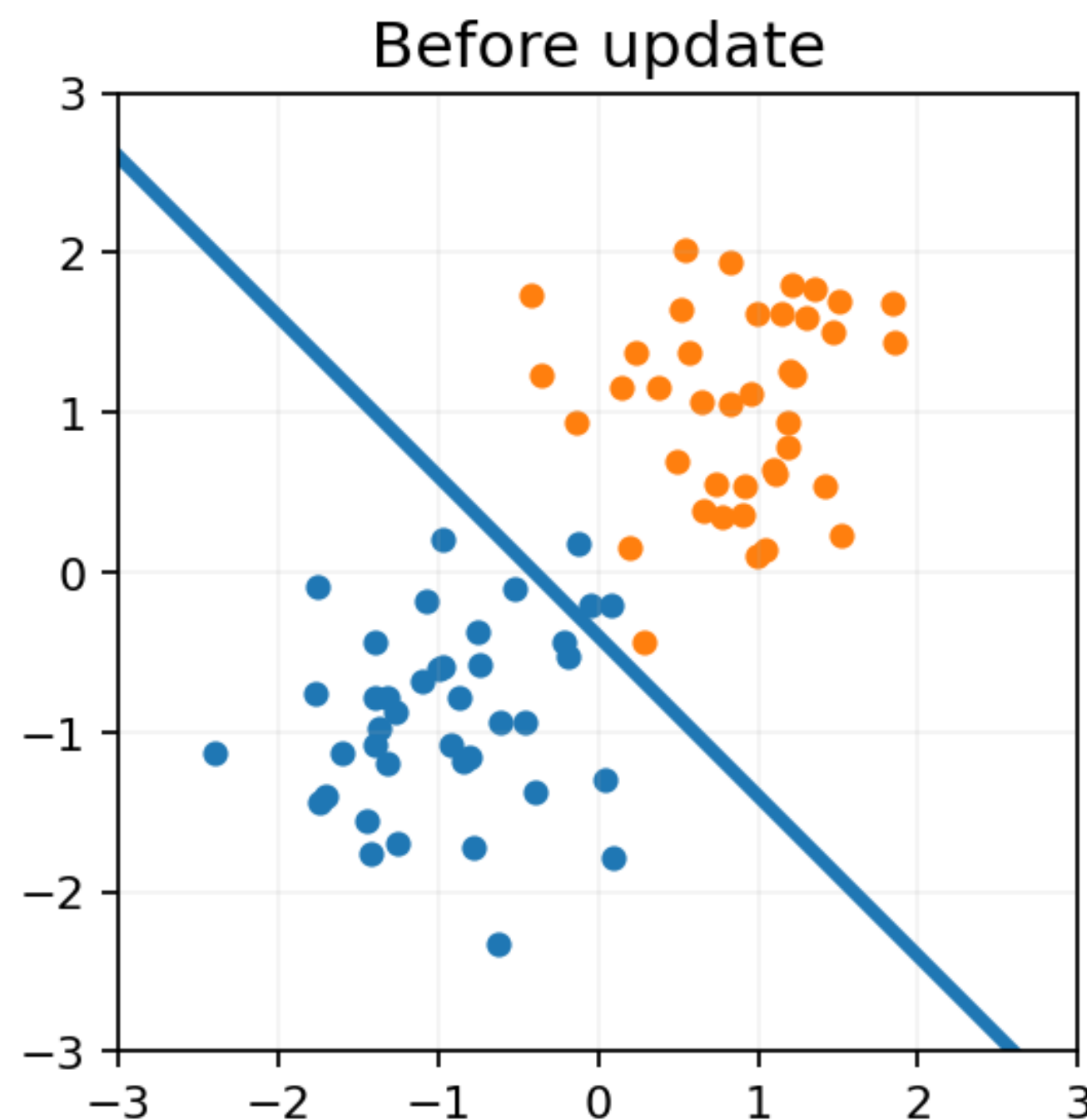
- Sigmoid/Tanh are bounded; useful for probabilities or normalized signals.
- ReLU-family is simple and often trains faster in deep networks.
- Choose based on curve shape, output range, and layer role.

Name	Function $\mathcal{A}(z)$	Output range	Illustration
Sigmoid σ <i>Sigmoid function</i>	$\frac{1}{1 + e^{-z}}$	$]0, 1[$	
Tanh <i>Hyperbolic Tangent</i>	$\frac{e^z - e^{-z}}{e^z + e^{-z}}$	$] - 1, 1[$	
ReLU <i>Rectified Linear Unit</i>	$\max(0, z)$	$[0, +\infty[$	
Leaky ReLU <i>Leaky Rectified Linear Unit</i>	$\max(\epsilon z, z)$ with $\epsilon \ll 1$	$] - \infty, +\infty[$	

Name	Function $\mathcal{A}(z)$	Output range	Illustration
GELU <i>Gaussian Error Linear Unit</i>	$zP(X \leq z)$ with $X \sim \mathcal{N}(0, 1)$	$] - 0.17, +\infty[$	
ELU <i>Exponential Linear Unit</i>	$\max(\alpha(e^z - 1), z)$ with $\alpha \approx 1$	$] - \alpha, +\infty[$	

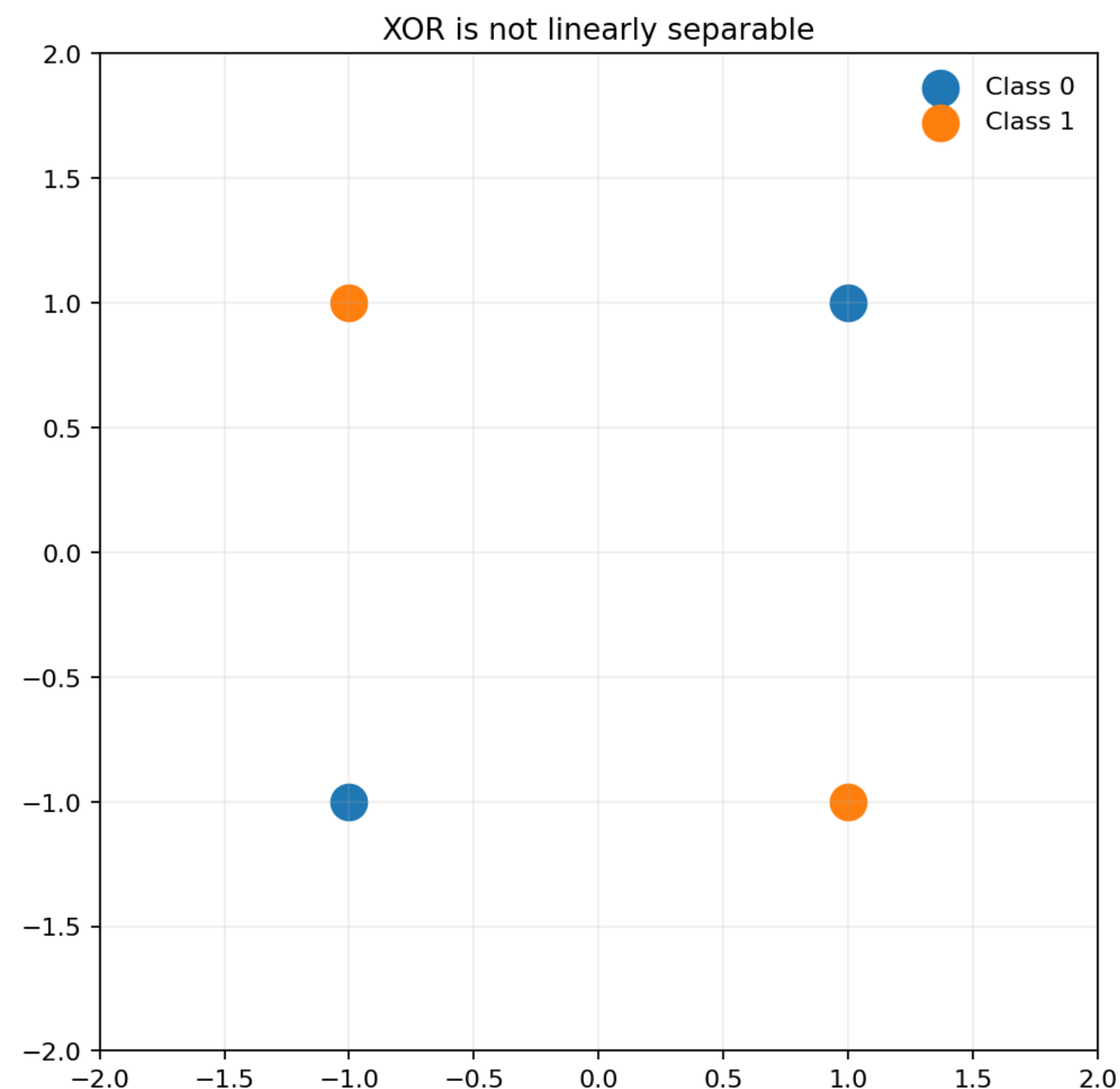
Perceptron update moves the boundary

- The perceptron updates its weights only when it makes a mistake.
- Each misclassified example pushes the boundary in a corrective direction.
- Repeated updates gradually align the separator with the data.

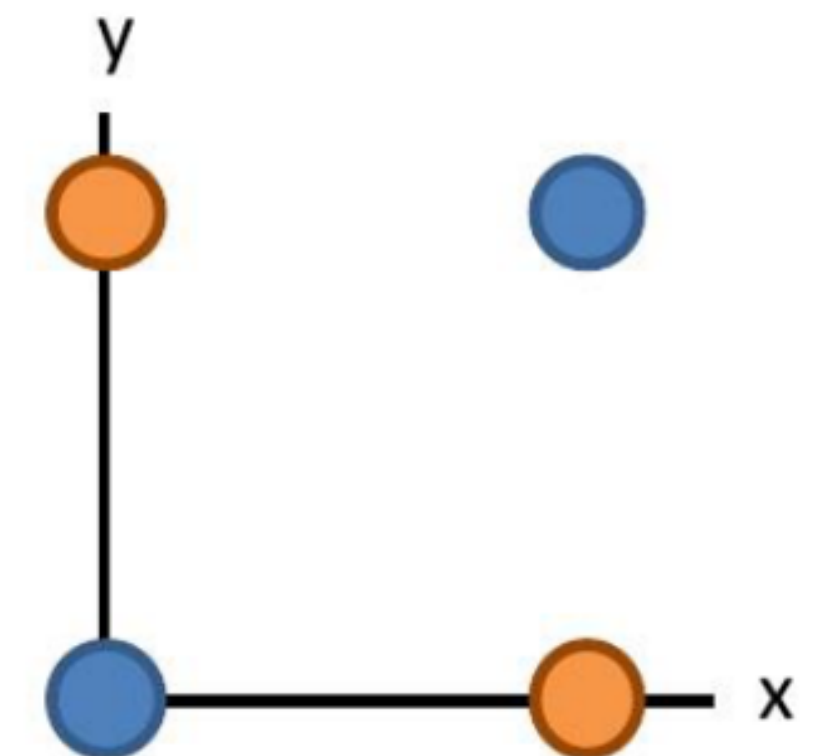


XOR problem

- Minsky and Papert (1969) famously analyzed limitations of single-layer perceptrons.
- XOR example showcases that some functions require multiple layers or nonlinearity.
- This moment contributed to skepticism and a slowdown in neural network research.



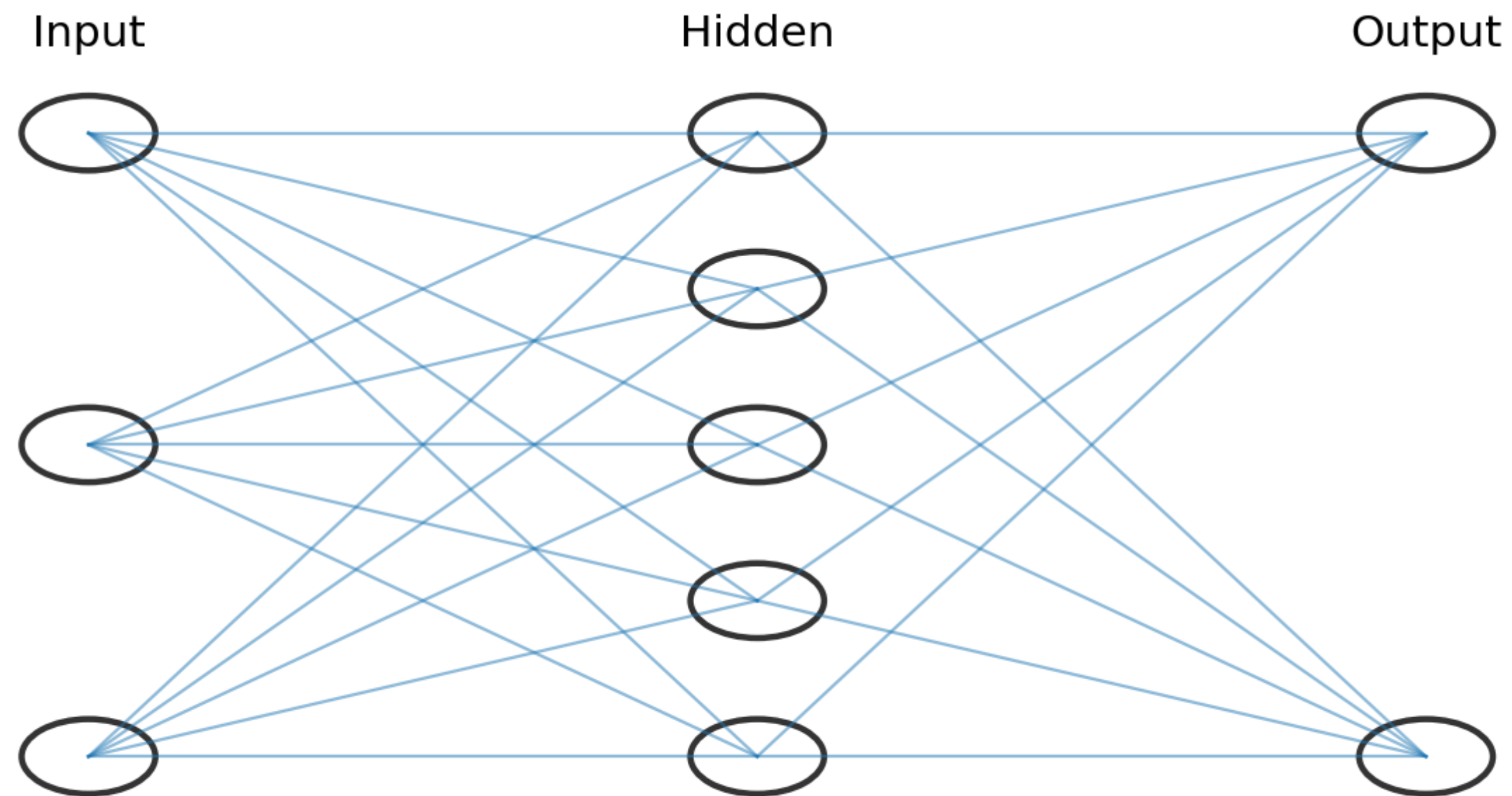
X	Y	F(x,y)
0	0	0
0	1	1
1	0	1
1	1	0



Showed that Perceptrons could not learn the XOR function
Caused a lot of disillusionment in the field

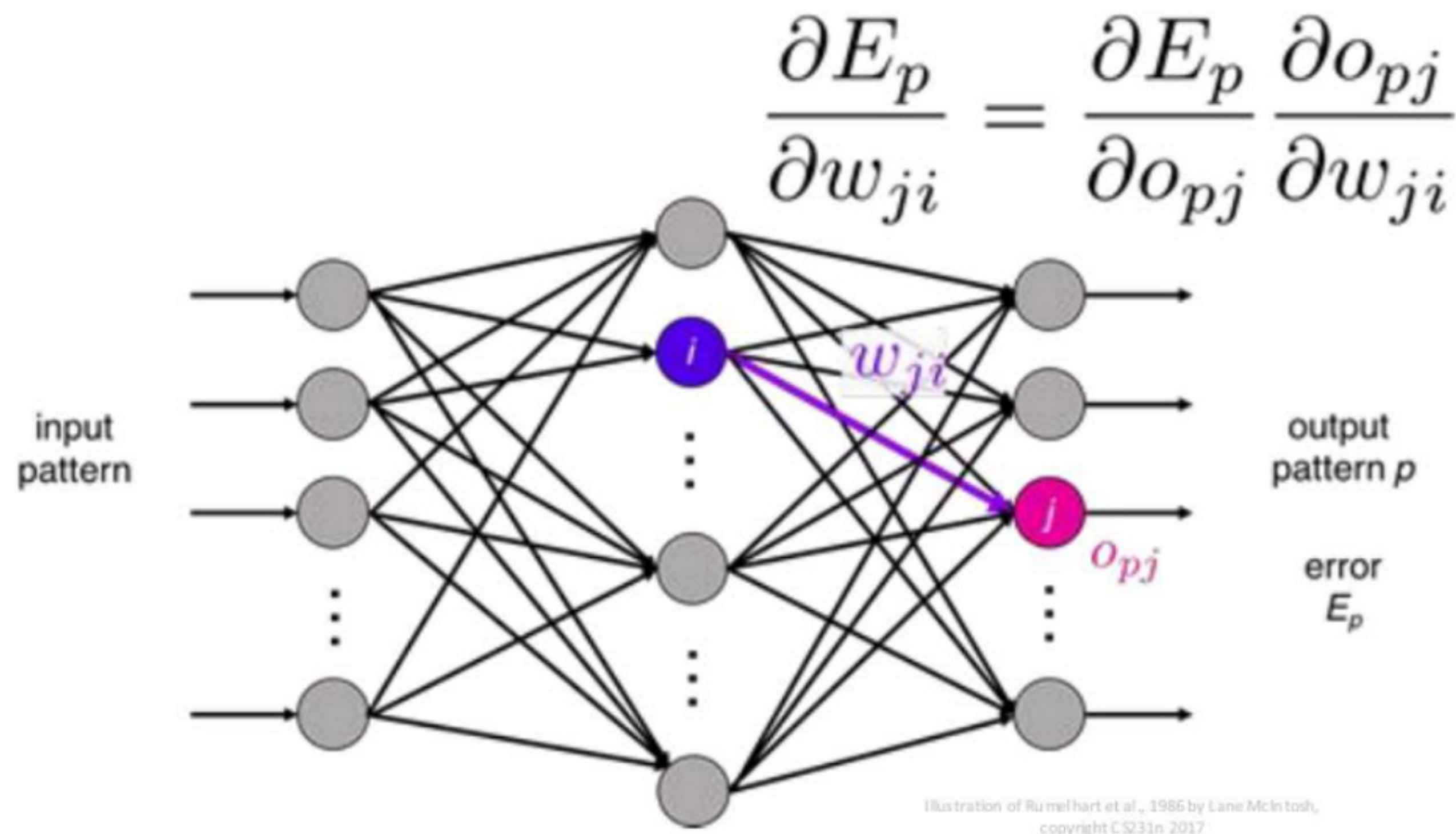
Perceptron $\rightarrow$ MLP

- Nonlinearity in Hidden layers enables non-linear decision boundaries.
- Multi-Layer Perceptron (MLP) : Add Hidden Layers



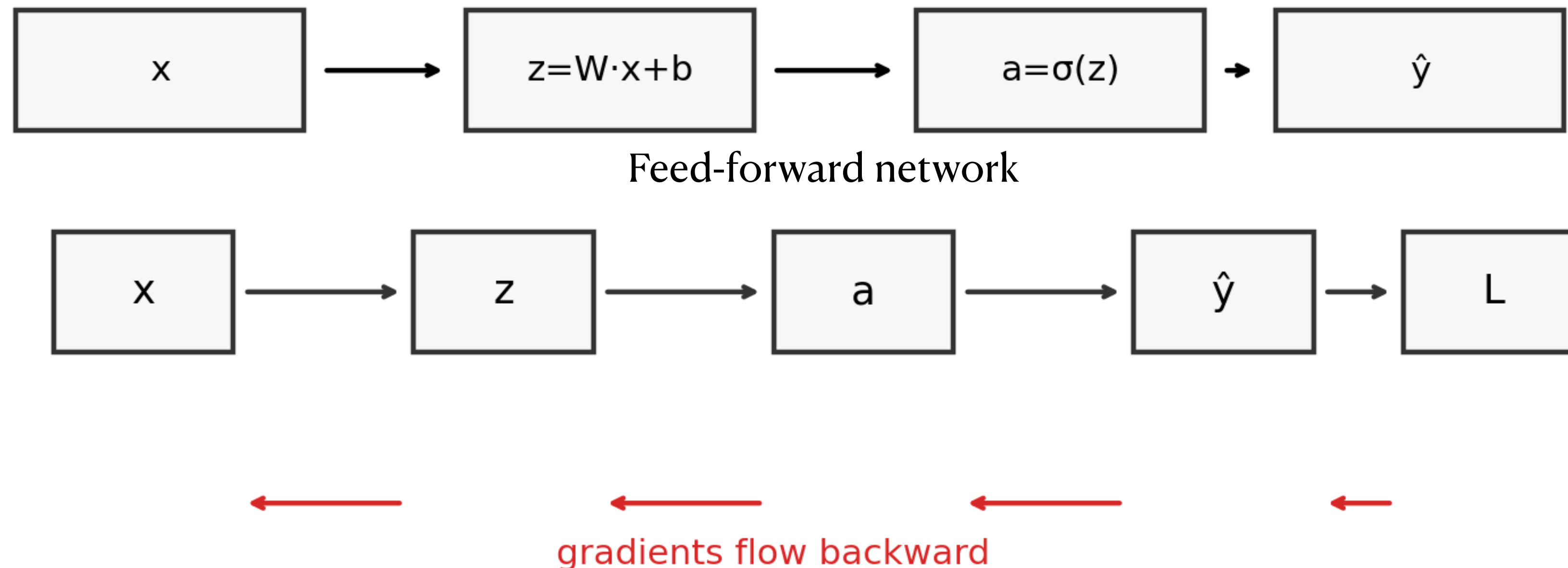
Backprop: Rumelhart, Hinton, and Williams, 1986

- Backpropagation: a practical way to compute gradients in multi-layer networks.
- We can optimize deep models using data rather than manual tuning.
- This is the algorithmic foundation behind modern deep learning training.



Backprop: Rumelhart, Hinton, and Williams, 1986

- Forward Pass as a computation graph
- Backprop computes gradients by running the graph backward (chain rule)
 - Compute gradients efficiently for all parameters.
- A neural network is a differentiable program.



Chain Rule (One Picture)

- Backpropagation is the chain rule applied repeatedly through the network.
- Each local derivative measures how a small change affects the next variable.
- Multiplying these local terms gives gradients for earlier layers.

$$x \rightarrow z \rightarrow y$$

$$\frac{dy}{dx} = \frac{dy}{dz} \cdot \frac{dz}{dx}$$

Backprop is chain rule applied repeatedly on a graph.

Framing : Architecture, Training

- We study each model through architecture, data & training, and domain extension.
- Architecture defines what kinds of functions the model can represent.
- Training determines what the model actually learns from data.

Architecture	Data & Training	X (Domain)
Perceptron, MLP (activation, depth)	loss, optimizer, regularization, data	vision / language / multimodal / robotics / ...

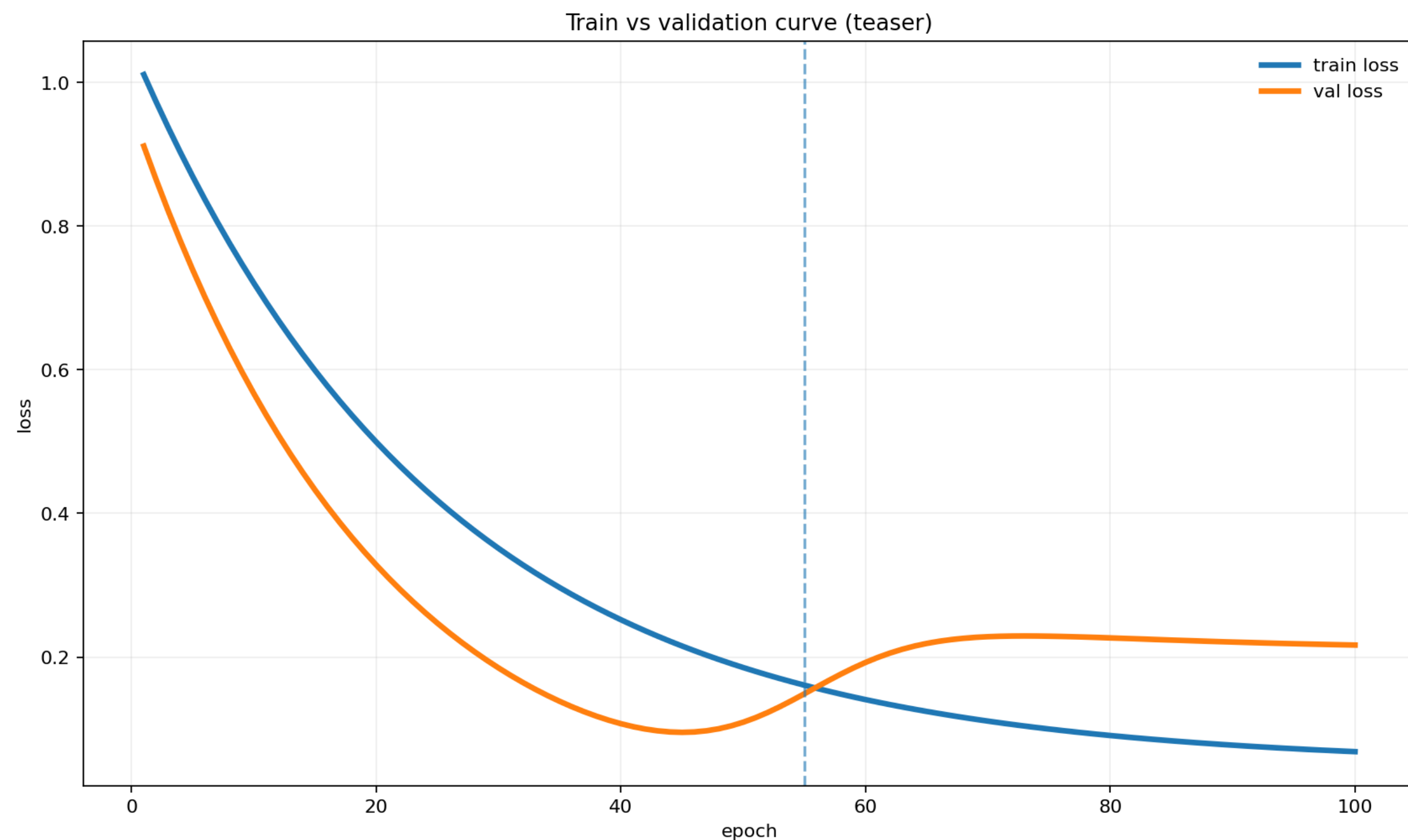
K-fold cross validation

- K-fold cross validation splits the dataset into K disjoint folds
- Each fold is used once for validation while the others are used for training.
- Averaging across folds gives a more reliable estimate when data is limited.



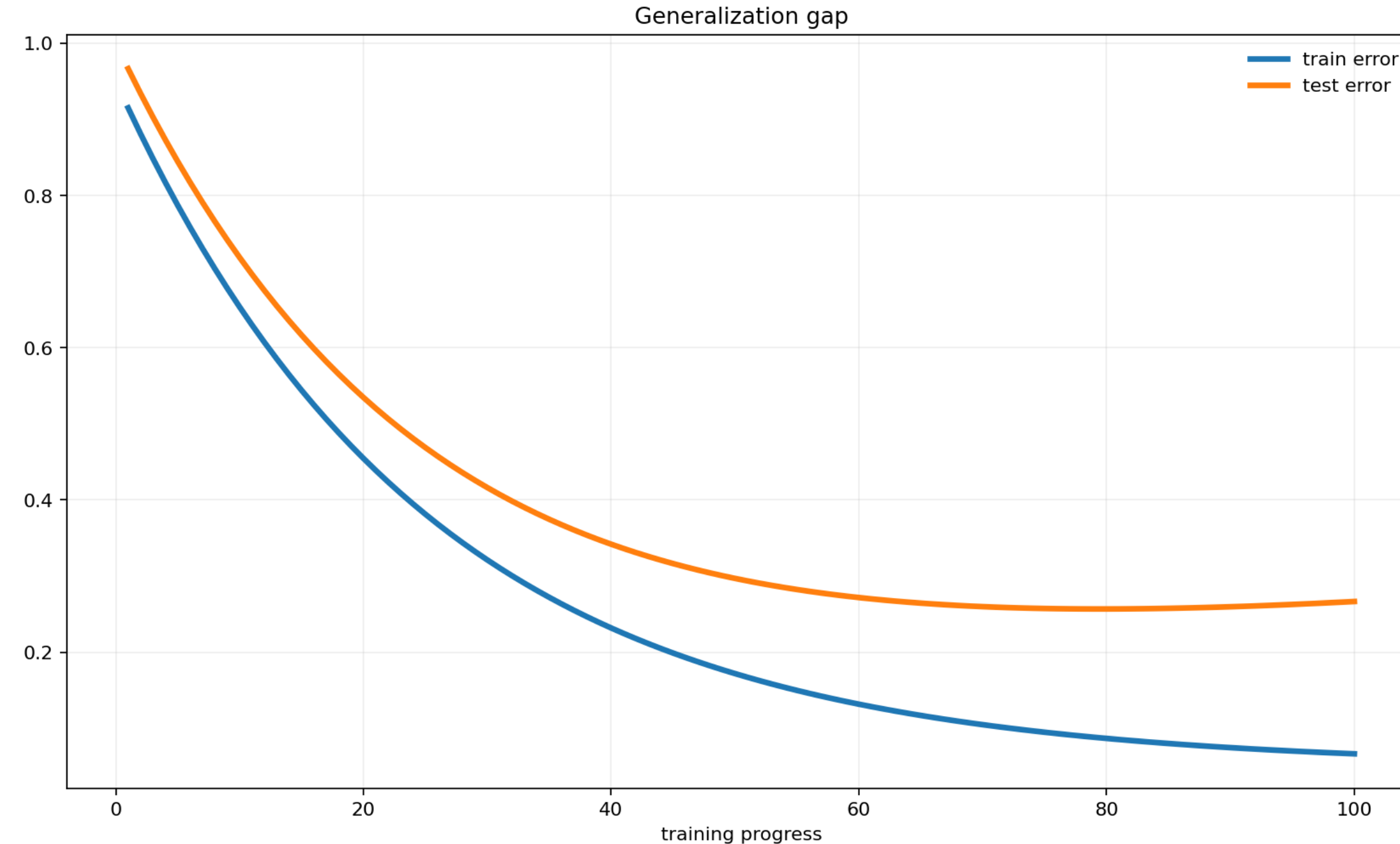
Expressivity vs Generalization

- Expressivity is the ability to fit richer functions and more complex patterns.
- Generalization asks whether those patterns still hold on unseen data.
- A more expressive model can lower training loss while hurting validation loss.



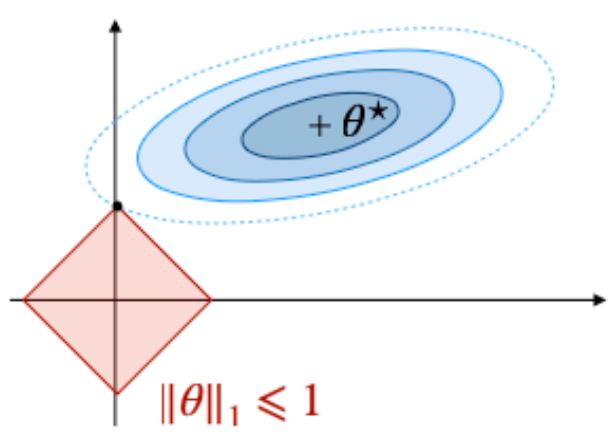
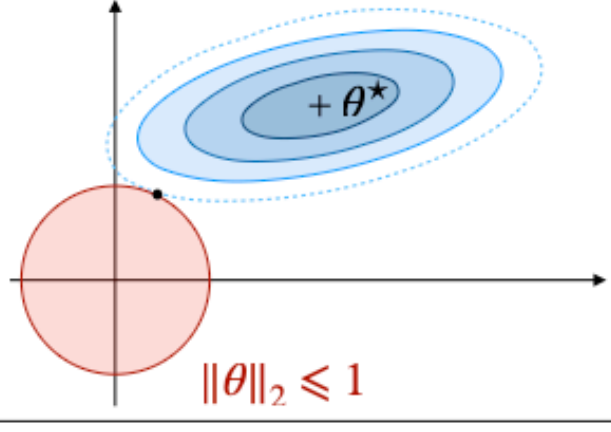
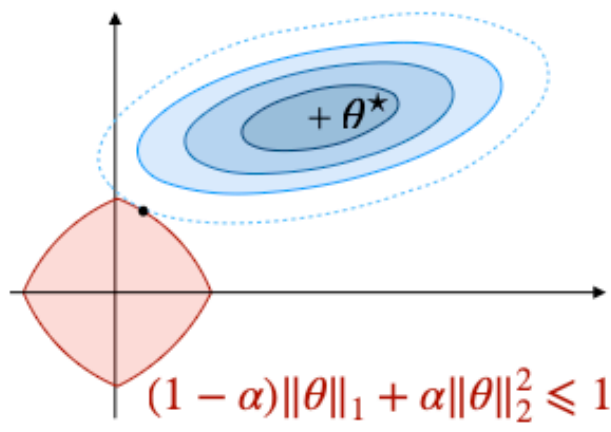
Generalization gap

- The generalization gap is the difference between training error and test error.
- A small gap suggests stable learning, while a large gap signals overfitting.
- This gap is why we use validation, regularization, and early stopping.



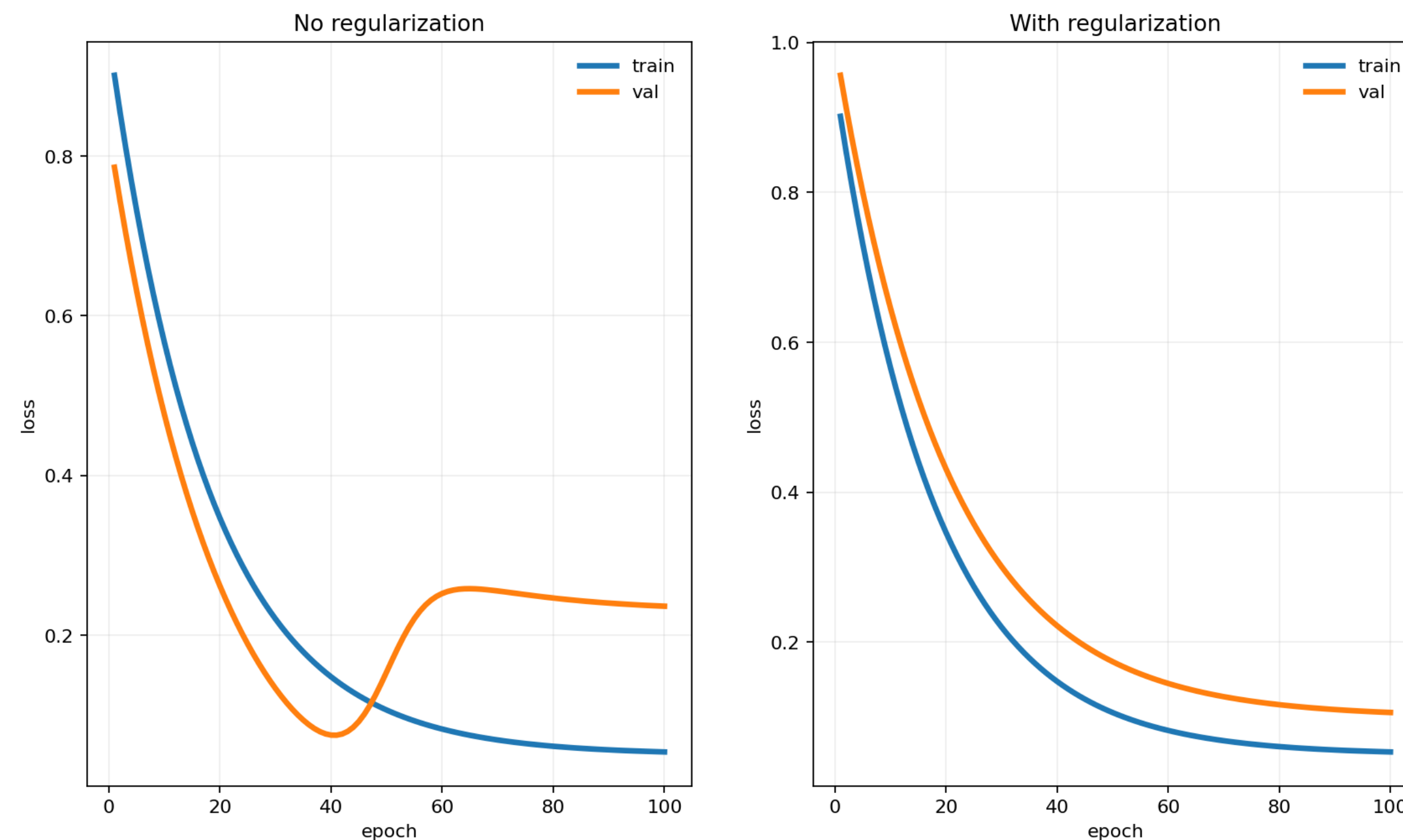
Weight Regularization

- L1 (LASSO): encourages sparsity; can drive some weights to zero.
- L2 (Ridge): shrinks weights smoothly; reduces overfitting.
- Elastic Net : Trade-off between variable selection and small coefficients

Regularizer	Description	Illustration
<i>Least Absolute Shrinkage and Selection Operator</i> (LASSO)	$\mathcal{L} + \lambda \ \theta\ _1$ with $\lambda > 0$ • Shrinks coefficients to 0 • Good for variable selection • L_1 regularization	 $\ \theta\ _1 \leq 1$
Ridge	$\mathcal{L} + \lambda \ \theta\ _2^2$ with $\lambda > 0$ • Reduces magnitude of coefficients • L_2 regularization	 $\ \theta\ _2 \leq 1$
Elastic Net	$\mathcal{L} + \lambda [(1 - \alpha)\ \theta\ _1 + \alpha\ \theta\ _2^2]$ with $\lambda > 0$ and $\alpha \in [0, 1]$ Trade-off between variable selection and small coefficients that can be tuned with α	 $(1 - \alpha)\ \theta\ _1 + \alpha\ \theta\ _2^2 \leq 1$

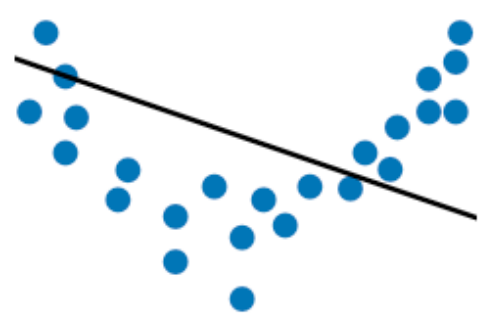
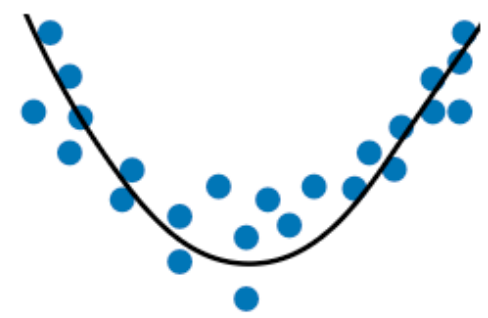
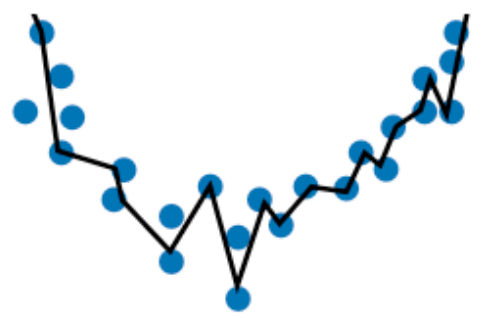
Case study: Regularization on/off

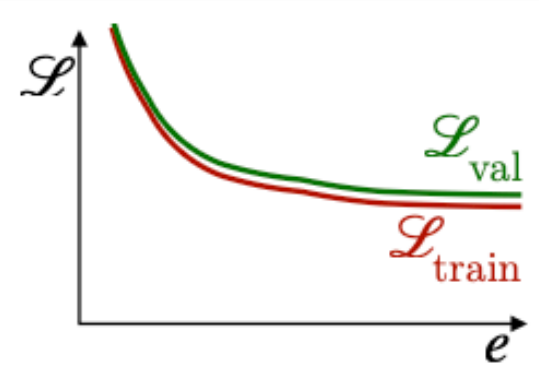
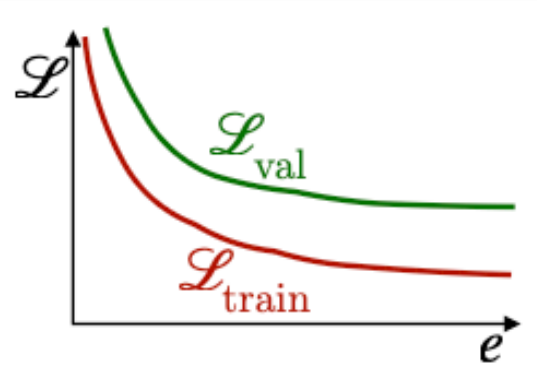
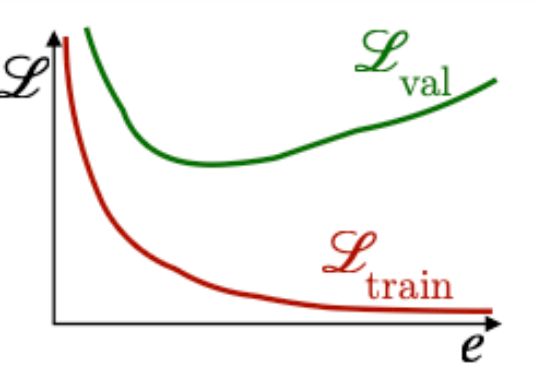
- Without regularization, validation loss rises after early improvement.
- With regularization, the model gives up a little fit to gain much better stability.
- Better generalization matters more than the lowest possible training loss.



Bias-Variance Trade-Off

- High bias $\rightarrow$ too simple $\rightarrow$ underfitting.
- High variance $\rightarrow$ too sensitive $\rightarrow$ overfitting.
- Typical fixes: adjust model size, regularize, get more data, or train longer.

	Underfitting	Just right	Overfitting
Symptoms	• High training error • Training error close to test error • High bias	Training error slightly lower than test error	• Low training error • Training error much lower than test error • High variance
Intuition			
Regression			

	Underfitting	Just right	Overfitting
Evolution of the loss			
Possible remedies	• Complexify model • Add more features • Train longer		• Regularize • Get more data

Takeaway

- MLPs become powerful because hidden layers and nonlinear activations can represent patterns that a single perceptron cannot.
- Backpropagation made multilayer networks practical by computing gradients efficiently and training the whole model end to end.
- Good learning is not just fitting the training set; it is balancing expressivity, regularization, and the bias-variance trade-off to generalize well.

Too Much Information : Bias-Variance Decomposition

1. Step 1 : Plug $Y = f(x) + \varepsilon$ into $\mathcal{E}(x)$

1. Suppose to have $Y = f(x) + \varepsilon$, $E[\varepsilon | x] = 0$, $Var(\varepsilon | x) = \sigma^2$
2. Set $\hat{f}_D(x)$ as the learned model and look into $\mathcal{E}(x) = \mathbb{E}_D \left[(Y - \hat{f}_D(x))^2 | x \right]$
3. $\mathcal{E}(x) = \mathbb{E}_D \left[(Y - \hat{f}_D(x))^2 | x \right]$ can be replaced with $\mathbb{E}_D \left[(f(x) - \hat{f}_D(x))^2 + 2\varepsilon(f(x) - \hat{f}_D(x)) + \varepsilon^2 \right]$
4. It's also replaced with $\mathbb{E}_D \left[(f(x) - \hat{f}_D(x))^2 \right] + 2\mathbb{E}_D \left[\varepsilon(f(x) - \hat{f}_D(x)) \right] + \mathbb{E}[\varepsilon^2]$

2. Step 2 : Cross term

1. When set $\mathbb{E}[\varepsilon | x] = 0$ and ε independent from D and randomness, get $\mathbb{E}_{D,\varepsilon} \left[\varepsilon(f(x) - \hat{f}_D(x)) \right] = 0$, $\mathbb{E}[\varepsilon^2] = \sigma^2$
2. $\mathcal{E}(x) = \mathbb{E}_D \left[(f(x) - \hat{f}_D(x))^2 \right] + \sigma^2$ we call σ^2 as irreducible noise.

Too Much Information : Bias-Variance Decomposition

3. Step 3. Expected predictor

1. We call $\bar{f}(x) = \mathbb{E}_D[\hat{f}_D(x)]$ as expected predictor
2. $f(x) - \hat{f}_D(x) = (f(x) - \bar{f}(x)) + (\bar{f}(x) - \hat{f}_D(x))$ comes out.

4. Step 4. Expand the equation again.

1. We get
$$\begin{aligned}\mathbb{E}_D \left[(f(x) - \hat{f}_D(x))^2 \right] &= \mathbb{E}_D \left[(f(x) - \bar{f}(x) + \bar{f}(x) - \hat{f}_D(x))^2 \right] \\ &= \mathbb{E}_D \left[(f(x) - \bar{f}(x))^2 \right] + \mathbb{E}_D \left[(\bar{f}(x) - \hat{f}_D(x))^2 \right] + 2\mathbb{E}_D \left[(f(x) - \bar{f}(x))(\bar{f}(x) - \hat{f}_D(x)) \right]\end{aligned}$$
2. $(f(x) - \bar{f}(x))^2 + \mathbb{E}_D \left[(\hat{f}_D(x) - \bar{f}(x))^2 \right] + 2(f(x) - \bar{f}(x))\mathbb{E}_D[\bar{f}(x) - \hat{f}_D(x)]$ because $f(x) - \bar{f}(x)$ becomes constant w.r.t D
3. $\mathbb{E}_D[\bar{f}(x) - \hat{f}_D(x)] = \bar{f}(x) - \mathbb{E}_D[\hat{f}_D(x)] = 0$, so it leads cross term equals to 0
4.
$$\mathbb{E}_D \left[(f(x) - \hat{f}_D(x))^2 \right] = (f(x) - \bar{f}(x))^2 + \mathbb{E}_D \left[(\hat{f}_D(x) - \bar{f}(x))^2 \right]$$

Too Much Information : Bias-Variance Decomposition

5. Step 5. Name “Bias” and “Variance”

1. We set ‘Bias’ as

$$\text{Bias}(x) = \bar{f}(x) - f(x) = \mathbb{E}_D[\hat{f}_D(x)] - f(x) \quad \text{Var}(x) = \mathbb{E}_D \left[(\hat{f}_D(x) - \bar{f}(x))^2 \right]$$

2. Finally, we get

$$\mathcal{E}(x) = \underbrace{\text{Bias}(x)^2}_{\text{systematic error}} + \underbrace{\text{Var}(x)}_{\text{sensitivity to data}} + \underbrace{\sigma^2}_{\text{irreducible noise}}$$

$$\mathbb{E}_{D,\varepsilon} \left[(Y - \hat{f}_D(x))^2 \mid x \right] = \text{Bias}(x)^2 + \text{Var}(x) + \sigma^2$$

Q&A

Any question?